Representations, Generators and Solvers for Perfect 3D Mazes: A Comparative Study

Mrwan Alhandi

Abstract—Perfect mazes are spanning trees of grid graphs, and they are used in games, puzzles and as testbeds for search algorithms. Most comparisons of maze algorithms are qualitative and two-dimensional. We present a reproducible comparative study covering three layers of the problem: the data structure that stores the maze (wall array, adjacency list, adjacency matrix), the generator (recursive backtracking, Prim, Wilson) and the solver (random depth-first search, wall following, Pledge, multi-source breadth-first search), on 2D and multi-level 3D mazes. We formulate wall following in 3D through a fixed rotation order of the six directions, which keeps its termination guarantee. We also use a simple solver-aware generator as a stress test. Across 1440 solver runs, the adjacency matrix's $O(V)$ neighbour queries make it 37× slower than the list for that operation, and it needs 15× the memory at 10^4 cells. Generators differ by about 5× in dead-end density and up to 7× in path length, and this reverses the solver ranking: breadth-first search explores the fewest cells on corridor mazes and the most on bushy ones. The solver-aware generator increases the cells explored by walking solvers by 27–55%, but not by breadth-first search, which shows that maze difficulty is solver-specific.

Index Terms—Maze generation, maze solving, spanning trees, graph representations, wall following, comparative study.

1 Problem Definition

A maze is a set of cells arranged on a grid in which some pairs of adjacent cells are separated by walls. We study perfect mazes: every cell is reachable from every other cell through exactly one path. Viewed as a graph whose vertices are cells and whose edges are open passages, a perfect maze is a spanning tree of the grid graph [1]. We consider two settings. In the 2D setting the grid has $r \times c$ cells. In the 3D setting the maze has L levels, where level ℓ is an $r_\ell \times c_\ell$ grid; levels may have different sizes, and a cell is also adjacent to the cells directly above and below it when those exist. Entrances and exits are cells on the outer boundary of a level whose wall to the maze has been removed.

Three problems follow from this definition. (P1) Representation. The generator and solvers only use two maze operations: setting the wall between two adjacent cells (updateWall) and listing the cells adjacent to a cell (neighbours). Which data structure (a 2D wall array, an adjacency list or an adjacency matrix) makes these cheap, and what does it cost in memory? (P2) Generation. Different spanning-tree algorithms produce trees with very different shapes, for example long corridors versus many short dead ends. How do they differ, and how does the shape affect solving? (P3) Solving. Given an entrance, a solver walks the maze until it reaches an exit. Its cost is the number of distinct cells it explores. How do classic solvers compare in 3D? Two variants complete the problem. In best entrance–exit solving (P3b), the solver may choose the entrance and must find the closest entrance–exit pair while exploring few cells. In adversarial generation (P3c), the generator knows which solver will be used (but may not run it) and must produce a perfect maze that makes that solver explore as many cells as possible.

• M. Alhandi is with the Department of Computer Science.

2 Literature Review

Graph representations: Adjacency lists use $O(V + E)$ space and enumerate a vertex's neighbours in time proportional to its degree. Adjacency matrices use $O(V^2)$ space and test an edge in $O(1)$, but enumerating neighbours needs $O(V)$ time [2]. Grid mazes are very sparse ($E < 3V$ in 3D), so textbook analysis predicts that lists dominate. Maze libraries commonly use an implicit grid array instead, storing one flag per potential wall [1].

Maze generation: Each classic generator is a spanning-tree algorithm. Recursive backtracking is a randomised depth-first search (DFS) [3]. It grows long, winding corridors with few branches. Prim's and Kruskal's algorithms build minimum spanning trees [4], [5]; with random weights they give bushy mazes with many short dead ends. The Aldous–Broder random walk [6], [7] and Wilson's loop-erased random walk [8] sample uniform spanning trees, so every perfect maze is equally likely. Wilson's algorithm is the faster of the two. Pullen [9] and Buck [1] catalogue these algorithms with qualitative descriptions of their texture (dead ends, river factor, bias). Kim and Crawfis [10] define quantitative measures of maze difficulty. Bellot et al. [11] compare perfect-maze generators statistically. Maze generation is also a standard technique in procedural content generation for games [12]. Most of these studies are two-dimensional.

Maze solving: Trémaux's method [13] is the historical form of DFS solving. Breadth-first search [14] and Dijkstra's algorithm [15] return shortest paths, and A* [16] adds a heuristic. Wall following (the left- or right-hand rule) needs no memory and is guaranteed to escape any simply connected maze. The Pledge algorithm [17] adds a turn counter so that it can also escape from detached islands when started inside the maze. Robot "bug" algorithms extend this idea to unknown obstacles [18]. Wall following generalises poorly to 3D: there is no global "left" once vertical moves exist. We are not aware of

a systematic comparison of these solvers on multi-level mazes, or of how a generator can be tuned against a known solver.

3 Research Plan

We answer four research questions:

- RQ1 (P1): How do the time per operation and the memory of the three representations scale with maze size?
- RQ2 (P2): How do recursive backtracking, Prim and Wilson differ in the structure of the 3D mazes they generate?
- RQ3 (P3, P3b): How many cells do random DFS, wall following, Pledge and multi-source BFS explore, and how does this depend on the generator?
- RQ4 (P3c): How much can a solver-aware generator increase the cells explored, using only the solver's name?

Implementations: All components share one maze interface, so every generator runs on every representation and every solver runs on every maze. The array stores a $(2r + 2) \times (2c + 2)$ grid of wall flags. The adjacency list maps each cell to a hash map from neighbour to wall status. The adjacency matrix stores the $V \times V$ matrix, with $V = (r + 2)(c + 2)$ including boundary cells, as one byte array whose entries encode no edge, open or wall. Random DFS is recursive backtracking with uniformly random choice at junctions. For wall following in 3D we fix one cyclic order of the six directions, (south, west, north, east, up, down). Arriving from direction d, the solver takes the first open direction after d in that order. For planar moves this is exactly the left-hand rule. Because every cell uses the same cyclic order (a rotation system [19]), the walk is an Euler tour of the passage tree. It therefore reaches every cell, and hence an exit, in at most $2(V - 1)$ moves in any perfect maze. Pledge walks straight in its preferred direction (into the maze), and when blocked follows the wall using the same rule while counting $\pm 90°$ turns. It resumes walking straight when the counter returns to zero. Vertical moves leave the counter unchanged. Pledge's escape guarantee is only proven for planar mazes, so after $4V$ steps the solver falls back to plain wall following. For best entrance–exit solving (P3b), multi-source BFS starts from all entrances at once and stops at the first exit it discovers. In unit-cost mazes this is equivalent to Dijkstra's algorithm, and that first exit belongs to the closest entrance–exit pair.

Adversarial generator (P3c): Any solver must at least walk the unique path from its entrance to the exit it finds. The generator therefore makes this path long. It samples K random-DFS spanning trees, with $K = \min(100, \lfloor 2 \cdot 10^5 / V \rfloor)$, as edge lists without touching the maze, scores each one with BFS on the tree, and carves only the best. The score depends on the solver's name. For multi-source BFS it is the shortest entrance–exit distance over all pairs. For single-entrance solvers, whose entrance is unknown at generation time, it is the mean over entrances of the distance to the nearest exit.

Experimental setup: Experiment 1 (RQ1) generates $n \times n$ 2D mazes with recursive backtracking, for n from 10 to 200 (adjacency matrix up to 100, see Section 5). Each size runs with 5 seeds. We record the generation time, the mean time per updateWall/neighbours call, and the peak memory (tracemalloc) of the initialised maze. Experiments 2–4 (RQ2–RQ4) use three 3D settings with two entrances and two exits on different levels: 3 levels of 12×12 (432 cells); 3 mixed levels of 10×10, 14×8 and 8×14 (324 cells); and 4 levels of 20×20 (1600 cells). For each setting and each of 30 seeds, every baseline generator builds one maze that all four solvers solve. The adversarial generator builds one maze per target solver. Single-entrance solvers always start from the first entrance. In total there are 1440 solver runs. We verify that every generated maze is perfect and that every run reaches an exit. All experiments ran in Python 3.14 on an Apple M3 Pro with 18 GB of RAM. The code and raw results are in the accompanying repository, and the scripts in experiments/ reproduce every number in this report.

4 Contribution

This work is a comparative study (review/survey type). Its contributions are:

1) A unified, reproducible benchmark of three maze representations, three generators and four solvers, extended from the usual 2D setting to multi-level 3D mazes, including levels of different sizes.
2) A quantitative comparison of generator structure and its effect on solver exploration in 3D. It shows that the generator matters as much as the solver.
3) A 3D formulation of wall following based on a fixed rotation system, which keeps the classical termination guarantee in 3D, together with an empirical check of when Pledge differs from it.
4) A simple solver-aware generator used as a stress test. It measures how far each solver can be pushed and exposes where maximising path length is the wrong objective.

5 Results

RQ1: representations: Figure 1 and Table 1 confirm the asymptotic predictions and put sizes on them. updateWall is constant time in both graphs. The matrix is about 2× faster per call (0.9 vs. 2.1 μs) because it indexes a byte array instead of hashing coordinate objects. neighbours, however, scans a full matrix row. At 100×100 it costs 29.4 μs per call, 37× the list's 0.80 μs, and the gap grows linearly with V. The generator calls neighbours about $2V$ times, so the matrix's generation time is quadratic (0.67 s vs. 0.14 s at 100×100). Memory is the binding constraint. The matrix needs 105 MB at 100×100, 15× the list. Extrapolating the $O(V^2)$ trend gives about 1.7 GB at 200×200 and 26 GB at 400×400, so we did not run larger matrices. The array, which encodes only potential walls, is the fastest (0.067 s) and the smallest (0.37 MB) by an order of magnitude. For a fixed grid, implicit adjacency beats either general graph representation.

RQ2: generator structure: Table 2 reports structural measures on the largest setting. The generators produce very different trees from the same grid. Only 8.7% of cells in recursive-backtracking mazes are dead ends, compared with 32% for Wilson and 41% for Prim. The entrance-to-exit path is correspondingly long: 324 steps on average, against 81 for

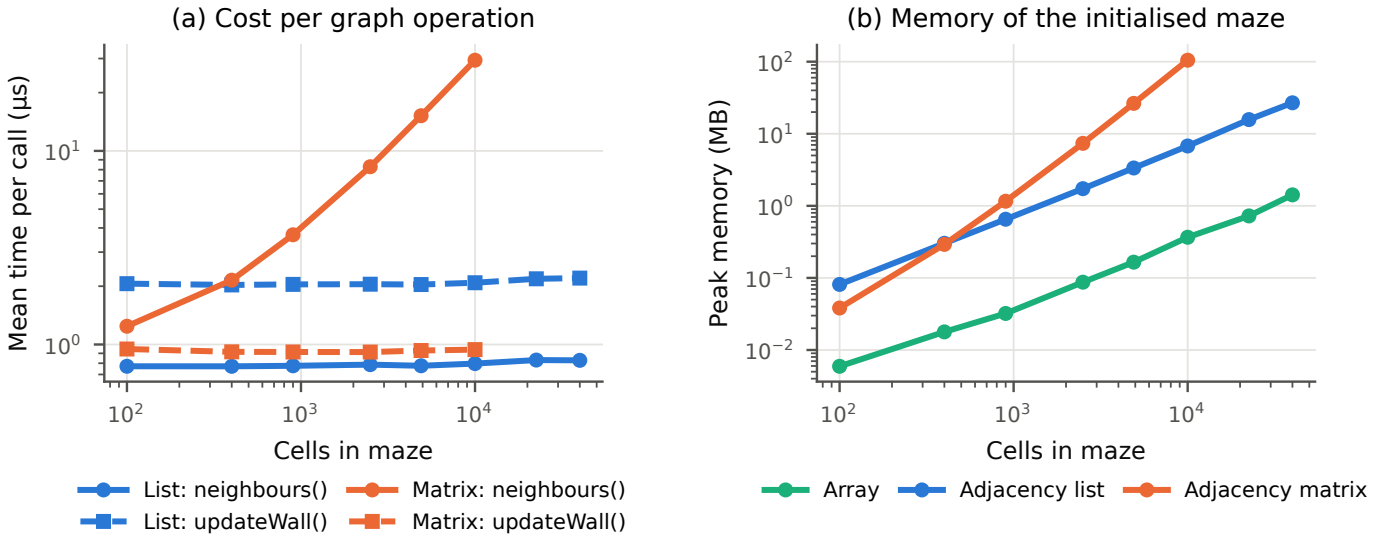


Fig. 1. Experiment 1 (log–log, mean of 5 seeds). (a) neighbours on the adjacency matrix grows linearly with the number of cells, while the other operations stay constant. (b) The adjacency matrix's memory grows quadratically.

TABLE 1
Experiment 1 at 100 × 100 cells (mean of 5 seeds).

Structure	Gen. (s)	updateWall (μs)	neighbours (μs)	Memory (MB)
Array	0.067	–	–	0.37
Adjacency list	0.140	2.08	0.80	6.77
Adjacency matrix	0.671	0.94	29.41	104.81

TABLE 2
Maze structure, 4 levels of 20 × 20 (mean of 30 seeds). "Path" is the length of the path from entrance 1 to its nearest exit. Adversarial: targeting random DFS.

Generator	Dead ends	Junctions	Vertical	Path	Gen. (s)
Recursive backtracking	8.7%	8.6%	26.9%	323.8	0.045
Prim	41.4%	28.7%	27.4%	47.3	0.048
Wilson	32.1%	25.8%	27.7%	80.5	0.101
Adversarial (ours)	8.7%	8.2%	27.4%	858.2	1.265

Wilson and 47 for Prim. The share of vertical passages (27%) barely depends on the generator, which shows that none of them is biased towards or against moving between levels. Wilson, the only unbiased generator, lies between the two extremes and costs about 2× the time of the others. The same ordering holds in the two smaller settings.

RQ3: solvers: Figure 2 shows that the solver ranking depends on the generator. On Prim and Wilson mazes the three single-entrance solvers explore 30–42% of the cells, because the exit is close and most dead ends are short. On recursive-backtracking mazes they explore 49–59%, because the long path has to be walked in full. Multi-source BFS shows the opposite trend. It explores the fewest cells on corridor-like mazes (823, where the frontier is narrow) and the most on bushy ones (1219 on Prim, 76% of the maze), because the number of cells within a given distance grows with branching. In exchange it always returns the globally shortest entrance–exit path, and it never backtracks, so its steps equal its explored cells. DFS, by contrast, takes 1363 steps to explore 936 cells on recursive-backtracking mazes. Wall following needs no memory, yet it explores fewer cells than random DFS on recursive-backtracking mazes (785 vs. 936) and takes fewer steps (1084 vs. 1363). Its deterministic order avoids DFS's random re-entries into side branches. Pledge differs from wall following only in how it starts. It explored exactly the same number of cells in 48% of the runs, and its mean is within 6% of wall following's in every setting. This is expected. Pledge's advantage is escaping islands when starting inside a maze, and a perfect maze entered from its boundary has no islands. The variance is large for all single-entrance solvers (the standard deviation is 40–50% of the mean): whether the solver happens to commit to the exit's branch early dominates its cost.

RQ4: adversarial generation: Table 3 compares the adversarial generator with the strongest baseline for each solver. Against the three single-entrance solvers it increases the cells explored by 27–55% in every setting, reaching 74–76% of the maze. It also cuts the standard deviation by 41–53% on the largest setting (Figure 2), because the long path is forced on every run. Wall following and Pledge gain the most,

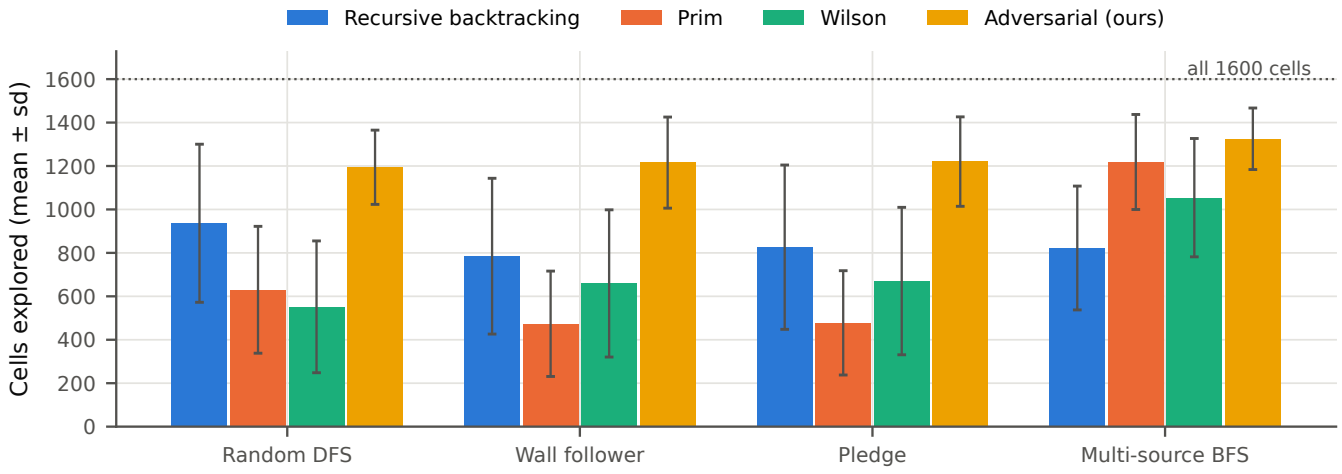


Fig. 2. Cells explored by each solver on each generator, 4 levels of 20×20 (1600 cells, mean $\pm$ sd over 30 seeds). Single-entrance solvers start at entrance 1. Multi-source BFS chooses the entrance itself.

TABLE 3
Cells explored: best baseline generator $\rightarrow$ adversarial generator (mean of 30 seeds). R = recursive backtracking, P = Prim.

Solver	$3 \times 12 \times 12$	Mixed 3 levels	$4 \times 20 \times 20$
Random DFS	R 255 $\rightarrow$ 323 (+27%)	R 168 $\rightarrow$ 222 (+32%)	R 936 $\rightarrow$ 1194 (+28%)
Wall follower	R 230 $\rightarrow$ 321 (+39%)	R 160 $\rightarrow$ 226 (+41%)	R 785 $\rightarrow$ 1216 (+55%)
Pledge	R 225 $\rightarrow$ 324 (+44%)	R 164 $\rightarrow$ 230 (+40%)	R 826 $\rightarrow$ 1220 (+48%)
Multi-source BFS	P 348 $\rightarrow$ 355 (+2%)	P 276 $\rightarrow$ 246 (-11%)	P 1219 $\rightarrow$ 1325 (+9%)

because their deterministic order cannot shortcut a long path. Against multi-source BFS the gain is small (+2% and +9%) and negative on the mixed-level maze (-11% versus Prim). BFS's cost is the number of cells closer than the nearest exit, which depends on branching as much as on distance. Prim's bushy trees fill that neighbourhood densely, while long DFS corridors do not. Maximising path length is therefore the right objective for walkers but not for breadth-first searchers. The price is generation time (28$\times$ recursive backtracking at 1600 cells, because $K = 100$ candidates are built), which is affordable offline.

6 Conclusion and Discussion

We compared maze representations, generators and solvers on 2D and multi-level 3D perfect mazes. Four conclusions emerge. (i) For grid mazes, an implicit wall array beats both general graph representations. Between those two, the adjacency list is the practical choice: the matrix's per-call updateWall advantage is outweighed by $O(V)$ neighbour queries and $O(V^2)$ memory, which already reaches 105 MB at 10^4 cells. (ii) The generator decides the maze's character: recursive-backtracking mazes have about 5$\times$ fewer dead ends and paths up to 7$\times$ longer than Prim's. It also decides which solver looks best, so solver comparisons on a single generator are misleading. (iii) In 3D, wall following stays complete under a fixed rotation order of the six directions, and it is competitive with random DFS while using no memory. Pledge adds nothing in perfect mazes entered from the boundary. Multi-source BFS is the right tool when the shortest pair matters, but its exploration cost depends heavily on branching. (iv) A generator that knows only the solver's name can raise the exploration of walking solvers by 27–55%. The same objective fails against breadth-first search, so adversarial generation needs a solver-specific notion of difficulty.

Limitations and future work: Timings come from Python, where interpreter overhead compresses constant factors; the asymptotic trends, not the absolute numbers, are the transferable result. The 3D settings are moderate (at most 1600 cells), and each single-entrance solver always starts from the same entrance. The adversarial generator searches only over DFS trees. For BFS-like solvers a natural next step is to search directly for trees that maximise the number of cells within the entrance–exit radius, for example by local search over spanning trees or with uniform sampling [8] as a proposal distribution. Extending the difficulty measures of Kim and Crawfis [10] to multi-level mazes is another open direction.

References

[1] J. Buck, Mazes for Programmers: Code Your Own Twisty Little Passages. The Pragmatic Bookshelf, 2015.
[2] T. H. Cormen, C. E. Leiserson, R. L. Rivest, and C. Stein, Introduction to Algorithms, 3rd ed. MIT Press, 2009.
[3] R. Tarjan, "Depth-first search and linear graph algorithms," SIAM Journal on Computing, vol. 1, no. 2, pp. 146–160, 1972.
[4] R. C. Prim, "Shortest connection networks and some generalizations," Bell System Technical Journal, vol. 36, no. 6, pp. 1389–1401, 1957.
[5] J. B. Kruskal, "On the shortest spanning subtree of a graph and the traveling salesman problem," Proceedings of the American Mathematical Society, vol. 7, no. 1, pp. 48–50, 1956.
[6] D. J. Aldous, "The random walk construction of uniform spanning trees and uniform labelled trees," SIAM Journal on Discrete Mathematics, vol. 3, no. 4, pp. 450–465, 1990.

[7] A. Broder, “Generating random spanning trees,” in Proceedings of the 30th Annual Symposium on Foundations of Computer Science (FOCS), 1989, pp. 442–447.
[8] D. B. Wilson, “Generating random spanning trees more quickly than the cover time,” in Proceedings of the 28th Annual ACM Symposium on Theory of Computing (STOC), 1996, pp. 296–303.
[9] W. D. Pullen, “Think labyrinth: Maze algorithms,” http://www.astrolog.org/labyrnth/algrithm.htm, accessed 2026.
[10] P. H. Kim and R. Crawfis, “The quest for the perfect perfect-maze,” in Proceedings of the Computer Games: AI, Animation, Mobile, Multimedia, Educational and Serious Games Conference (CGAMES), 2015, pp. 65–72.
[11] V. Bellot, M. Cautrès, J.-M. Favreau, M. Gonzalez-Thauvin, P. Lafourcade, K. L. Cornec, B. Mosnier, and S. Rivière-Wekstein, “How to generate perfect mazes?” Information Sciences, vol. 572, pp. 444–459, 2021.
[12] N. Shaker, J. Togelius, and M. J. Nelson, Procedural Content Generation in Games. Springer, 2016.
[13] É. Lucas, Récréations Mathématiques. Gauthier-Villars, 1882, vol. 1.
[14] E. F. Moore, “The shortest path through a maze,” in Proceedings of the International Symposium on the Theory of Switching. Harvard University Press, 1959, pp. 285–292.
[15] E. W. Dijkstra, “A note on two problems in connexion with graphs,” Numerische Mathematik, vol. 1, pp. 269–271, 1959.
[16] P. E. Hart, N. J. Nilsson, and B. Raphael, “A formal basis for the heuristic determination of minimum cost paths,” IEEE Transactions on Systems Science and Cybernetics, vol. 4, no. 2, pp. 100–107, 1968.
[17] H. Abelson and A. diSessa, Turtle Geometry: The Computer as a Medium for Exploring Mathematics. MIT Press, 1980.
[18] V. J. Lumelsky and A. A. Stepanov, “Path-planning strategies for a point mobile automaton moving amidst unknown obstacles of arbitrary shape,” Algorithmica, vol. 2, pp. 403–430, 1987.
[19] J. L. Gross and T. W. Tucker, Topological Graph Theory. Wiley, 1987.